CHAPTER 1

AN APPROACH TO POLITICAL CULTURE

THIS IS a study of the political culture of democracy and of the social structures and processes that sustain it. The faith of the Enlightenment in the inevitable triumph of human reason and liberty has been twice shaken in recent decades. The development of Fascism and Communism after World War I raised serious doubts about the inevitability of democracy in the West; and we still cannot be certain that the continental European nations will discover a stable form of democratic process suitable to their particular cultures and social institutions; nor can we more than hope that together they will discover a European democracy.

Without having first resolved these doubts, the events since World War II have raised questions of the future of democracy on a world scale. The "national explosions" in Asia and Africa and the almost universal pressure by previously subjected and isolated peoples for admission into the modern world put this more special political question into the broader context of the future character of the world's culture. Culture change has acquired a new significance in world history. The groping toward enlightenment and control over nature that acquired momentum three or four centuries ago in the West has become a world-wide process, and its tempo has shifted from centuries to decades.

The central question of public policy in the next decades is what content this emerging world culture will have. We already have a partial answer to this question and could have predicted it from our knowledge of the processes of cultural diffusion.[1] Physical goods and their mode of production seem to present the least difficulties in diffusion. It is apparent that these aspects of Western culture are diffusing rapidly, along with the technology upon which they depend. Since economic modernization and national unification

[1] Ralph Linton, *The Study of Man: An Introduction,* New York, 1936, pp. 324-46.

require a large social overhead investment in transportation, communication, and education, and since this in turn calls for taxation, regulation, and administration, the model of a rational bureaucracy also diffuses relatively easily. The idea of an efficient bureaucracy has much in common with the idea of a rational technology. Lucian Pye refers to modern social organization as being based on an organizational technology.[2] What it has in common with engineering and technology is its mixture of rationality and authority. Engineering is the application of rationality and authority to material things; modern social organization is its application to human beings and social groups. While the non-Western world is far from having successfully developed an industrial technology and an efficient bureaucracy, there can be little question that it wants these institutions and has some understanding of them.

What is problematical about the content of the emerging world culture is its political character. While the movement toward technology and rationality of organization appears with great uniformity throughout the world, the direction of political change is less clear. But one aspect of this new world political culture is discernable: it will be a political culture of participation. If there is a political revolution going on throughout the world, it is what might be called the participation explosion. In all the new nations of the world the belief that the ordinary man is politically relevant—that he ought to be an involved participant in the political system—is widespread. Large groups of people who have been outside of politics are demanding entrance into the political system. And the political elites are rare who do not profess commitment to this goal.

Though this coming world political culture appears to be dominated by the participation explosion, what the mode of participation will be is uncertain. The emerging nations are presented with two different models of the modern participatory state, the democratic and the totalitarian. The democratic state offers the ordinary man the opportunity to take part in the political decision-making process as an influential citizen; the totalitarian offers him the role of the "participant subject."[3] Both modes have appeal to the new nations,

[2] Committee on Comparative Politics, Social Science Research Council, *Memorandum on the Concept of Modernization,* November 1961.

[3] See Frederick C. Barghoorn, "Soviet Political Culture," a paper prepared for the Summer Institute on Political Culture, sponsored by the Committee on Comparative Politics, Social Science Research Council, Summer 1962.

and which will win out—if indeed some amalgam of the two does not emerge—cannot be foretold.

If the democratic model of the participatory state is to develop in these new nations, it will require more than the formal institutions of democracy—universal suffrage, the political party, the elective legislature. These in fact are also part of the totalitarian participation pattern, in a formal if not functional sense. A democratic form of participatory political system requires as well a political culture consistent with it. But the transfer of the political culture of the Western democratic states to the emerging nations encounters serious difficulties. There are two principal reasons. The first of these concerns the nature of the democratic culture itself. The great ideas of democracy—the freedoms and dignities of the individual, the principle of government by consent of the governed —are elevating and inspiring concepts. They capture the imaginations of many of the leaders of the new states and of the modernizing older ones. But the working principles of the democratic polity and its civic culture—the ways in which political elites make decisions, their norms and attitudes, as well as the norms and attitudes of the ordinary citizen, his relation to government and to his fellow citizens—are subtler cultural components. They have the more diffuse properties of belief systems or of codes of personal relations, which the anthropologists tell us spread only with great difficulty, undergoing substantial change in the process.

Actually, Western social science has only begun to codify the operating characteristics of the democratic polity itself. The doctrine and practice of a rational bureaucracy as an instrument of the democratic political powers are less than a century old. Doubts about the possibility of a neutral bureaucracy were expressed in England as recently as the 1930's, and on the European continent such doubt is widespread today. The complex infrastructure of the democratic polity—political parties, interest groups, and the media of communications—and the understanding of their inner workings, operating norms, and social-psychological preconditions are only now being realized in the West. Thus the image of the democratic polity that is conveyed to the elites of the new nations is obscure and incomplete and heavily stresses ideology and legal norms. What must be learned about democracy is a matter of attitude and feeling, and this is harder to learn.

The second principal reason why the diffusion of democracy en-

counters difficulties among the new nations concerns the objective problems confronting these nations. They are entering history with archaic technologies and social systems, drawn toward the gleam and power of the technological and scientific revolutions. It is not difficult to see why they should be drawn toward a technocratic image of the polity: a polity in which authoritarian bureaucracy predominates and political organization becomes a device for human and social engineering.

But in many cases, perhaps in all though in differing measure, the leaders of the modernizing nations appreciate the distortions and the risks in adopting an authoritarian form of polity. Though they cannot fully understand the subtle balances of the democratic polity and the nuances of the civic culture, they tend to acknowledge their legitimacy as the expression of an impulse toward the humane polity. In characterizing their situation, we have left out a significant element. For while it is true that they are fascinated by science and technology and are drawn to an impatient technocratic polity as a means of attaining the new things of this world, they are also the creatures of their own traditional cultures and would prefer to deal gently with these cultures if this choice were available.

The Civic Culture

It is as an answer to this ambivalence that the civic culture recommends itself. For the civic culture is not a modern culture, but a mixed modernizing-traditional one. C. P. Snow, with his gift for surgical prose, has confronted us with an exaggerated dichotomy between the humanistic and the scientific-technological cultures. Shils takes issue with Snow, arguing that he has missed a third culture—the civic culture—which, because it contains both the scientific and humanistic-traditional cultures, enables them to interact and interchange without destroying or polarizing each other.[4]

Herring, responding similarly to Snow's dichotomy, argues that

[4] C. P. Snow, *The Two Cultures and the Scientific Revolution,* New York, 1961, and Edward A. Shils, *Demagogues and Cadres In the Political Development of the New States,* a memorandum prepared for the Committee on Comparative Politics, Social Science Research Council, September 1961, pp. 20-21. The title of our book has been taken from this passage of the Shils paper, as well as from earlier uses of this concept of "civility" in other writings of his. For an excellent discussion of the relations between the scientific and humanistic cultures, see Shils, "The Calling of Sociology," in T. Parsons, E. Shils, K. Naegele, and J. Pitts, *Theories of Society,* New York, 1961, Vol. II, pp. 1,414 ff.

the culture of the West is pluralistic, and that Snow's representation of the sharp conflict between science and the more traditional humanism overlooks the cultural diversity of Western society, especially the quality that the cultures of science and democracy share in common: the experimental attitude. Herring suggests that science and democracy have a common origin in the humanistic culture of the West. But because they have different functions they diverge in important respects. Science is rational, straightforward, ". . . it abhors half-way measures." The democratic or civic culture emerged as a mode of "economic" and humane culture change. It takes the slow course and "seeks the common denominator."[5]

The development of the civic culture in Britain may be understood as the product of a series of encounters between modernization and traditionalism—encounters sharp enough to effect significant change but not so sharp or so concentrated in time as to create disintegration or polarization. Partly because of her insular security, Britain came into the era of national unification and of absolutism able to tolerate a greater measure of aristocratic, local, and corporate autonomy than could continental Europe. A first step toward secularization was the separation from the Church of Rome and the beginnings of toleration of religious diversity. A second step was the emergence of a thriving and self-confident merchant class, and the involvement of court and aristocracy in the risks and calculations of trade and commerce.

Independent aristocrats with secure local power in the countryside, courageous nonconformists, rich and self-confident merchants —these were the forces that transformed the tradition of the feudal estates into the parliamentary tradition and enabled Britain to pass through the era of absolutism without destroying her pluralism. Britain thus entered the industrial revolution with a political culture among its elites which made it possible to assimilate the gross and rapid changes in social structure in the eighteenth and nineteenth centuries without sharp discontinuities. The aristocratic Whigs found it possible to enter a coalition with nonconformist merchants and industrialists, to establish securely the principles of parliamentary supremacy and representation. The traditional aristocratic and monarchic forces assimilated enough of this civic culture to compete with the secularist tendencies for popular sup-

[5] E. P. Herring, "On Science and the Polity," *Items*, Social Science Research Council, Vol. xv, No. 1, Part 2, March 1961, p. 1.

port and, indeed, to mitigate their rationalism and impart to them a love and respect for the sacredness of the nation and its ancient institutions.

What emerged was a third culture, neither traditional nor modern but partaking of both; a pluralistic culture based on communication and persuasion, a culture of consensus and diversity, a culture that permitted change but moderated it. This was the civic culture. With this civic culture already consolidated, the working classes could enter into politics and, in a process of trial and error, find the language in which to couch their demands and the means to make them effective. It was in this culture of diversity and consensualism, rationalism and traditionalism, that the structure of British democracy could develop: parliamentarism and representation, the aggregative political party and the responsible and neutral bureaucracy, the associational and bargaining interest groups, and the autonomous and neutral media of communication. English parliamentarism included the traditional and modern forces; the party system aggregated and combined them; the bureaucracy became responsible to the new political forces; and the political parties, interest groups, and neutral media of communication meshed continuously with the diffuse interest groupings of the community and with its primary communications networks.

We have concentrated on British experience because the whole story of the emergence of the civic culture is told in British history, while developments in the United States and the countries of the "Old Commonwealth" began after some of the major battles had been won. Actually, in the course of the nineteenth century the development of the democratic culture and infrastructure was more rapid and more unequivocal in the United States than in Britain, since the United States was a new and rapidly expanding society and relatively unimpeded by traditional institutions. Though their basic patterns are similar, the civic cultures of Britain and the United States have somewhat different contents, reflecting these differences in national histories and social structures.

On the European continent the record is more mixed. Though their patterns differ in many respects from those of Britain and America, the Scandinavian countries, Low Countries, and Switzerland appear to have worked out their own version of a political culture and practice of accommodation and compromise. In France,

Germany, and Italy the encounters between modernizing tendencies and the traditional powers seem to have been too massive and too uncompromising to permit the emergence of a shared culture of political accommodation. The civic culture is present in the form of aspiration, and the democratic infrastructure is still far from being attained.

The civic culture and the open polity, then, represent the great and problematic gifts of the West. The technology and science of the West have now already passed out of her unique possession and everywhere are destroying and transforming traditional societies and cultures. Can the open polity and the civic culture—man's discovery of a humane and conservative way to handle social change and participation—spread as well?

As we consider the origin of the open polity and the civic culture —indeed, as we consider the areas in the West where their emergence is still in doubt—we may fall victim to one or both of two moods. The first is one of mystery or awe over a process whereby mankind on only a small part of the earth's surface muddled toward a humane and reasoned taming of violence and groped toward its transformation into a constructive instrument available to all interests. As mystery, it becomes a unique cultural heritage unavailable to foreigners. The second mood is one of pessimism, which seems to have replaced the mood of democratic optimism that existed before World War I. How can a set of arrangements and attitudes so fragile, so intricate, and so subtle be transplanted out of historical and cultural context? Or, how can these subtleties and these humane etiquettes survive even among ourselves in a world caught in the grip of a science and technology run wild, destructive of tradition and of community and possibly of life itself?

No one can provide definitive answers to these questions. But as social scientists we can put the questions in such a way as to get useful answers. While we may share the mood of wonder and awe at the intricacy of the democratic mechanisms and the unique historical experience out of which they emerged, we are confronted with a contemporary historical challenge for which mood by itself is an inadequate response. If we are to come closer to understanding the problems of the diffusion of democratic culture, we have to be able to specify the content of *what* has to be diffused, to develop appropriate measures for it, to discover its quantitative incidence and demographic distribution in countries with a wide range of ex-

perience with democracy. With such knowledge we can speculate intelligently about "how much of what" must be present in a country before democratic institutions take root in congruent attitudes and expectations.

Efforts to deal with this problem have usually been based on impressions and inferences from history, on inferences from democratic ideology, on certain kinds of sociological analysis, or on psychological insights. Thus in our efforts to estimate the prospects of democracy in countries such as Germany and Italy, or in the developing areas of the non-Western world, we frequently try to draw "lessons" from British and American history. It has been argued, for example, that the long continuity of British and American political experience and the gradual process of change have both contributed to effective democratization. Similarly, the growth of a vigorous and numerous middle class, the development of Protestantism, and in particular the nonconformist sects, have been considered vital to the development of stable democratic institutions in Britain, the Old Commonwealth, and the United States. There have been efforts to derive from these experiences some standards as to what attitudes and behavior must be present in other countries if they are to become democratic.

Even more common than drawing inferences from history has been our tendency to derive criteria of what has to be diffused from the institutional and ideological norms of democracy itself. It is argued that if a democratic system is based on the sharing of influence among the adult population as a whole, then, if the system is not to be subverted, the individual must use his power intelligently for the good of the polity. Theorists of democracy from Aristotle to Bryce have stressed that democracies are maintained by active citizen participation in civic affairs, by a high level of information about public affairs, and by a widespread sense of civic responsibility. These doctrines tell us what a democratic citizen ought to be like if he is to behave according to the requirements of the system.

Still a third type of investigation of the conditions favoring the development of stable democracy are studies of the economic and social conditions associated with democratic systems. This continues an old Aristotelian tradition. Lipset classified the nations of Europe (including the Old Commonwealth) and of Latin America into "stable democracies" and "unstable democracies and dictatorships."[6] Assignment to one or the other category was based on the historical

[6] Seymour M. Lipset, *Political Man,* New York, 1960, pp. 45 ff.

record of these countries. He then drew together the available statistical information on economic and social conditions in these countries, the degree of industrialization and urbanization, literacy rates, and educational patterns. His findings show a relatively convincing correlation between these indices of "modernization" and stable democratization. James Coleman, in a similar analysis that included Southeast Asia, South Asia, the Middle East, Africa and Latin America, also found a strong correlation between indices of modernization and democratization.[7] The main problem presented by these studies is that the cultural and psychological consequences of "modern" technologies and processes are left to inference. We know that democracies, in comparison to other political systems, tend to have more literate and educated people, that their per capita income and wealth are higher, and that they enjoy in greater proportions the amenities of modern civilization. But this type of analysis not only omits the psychological basis of democratization, it cannot explain the significant deviant cases. Thus Germany and France, which rank high on the indices of modernization, are classified by Lipset as unstable democracies. Cuba and Venezuela, both of which rank high in economic development in Latin America, have long histories of dictatorship and instability. This kind of study is suggestive of hypotheses but does not tell us directly what kind of cluster of attitudes is associated with democracy.

Another type of approach to the culture and psychology of democracy is based on the insights of psychoanalysis. Harold Lasswell has gone furthest in specifying the personality characteristics of the "democrat."[8] In his list of democratic character qualities he includes (1) an "open ego," by which he means a warm and inclusive attitude toward other human beings; (2) a capacity for sharing values with others; (3) a multivalued rather than a single-valued orientation; (4) trust and confidence in the human environment, and (5) relative freedom from anxiety. While the relation between these characteristics and democratic behavior seems to be clear, Lasswell's democratic qualities are not specifically *political* attitudes and feelings, and they may actually be encountered in great frequency in societies that are not democratic in structure.

Our study grows out of this body of theory about the character-

[7] Gabriel A. Almond and James Coleman, *The Politics of the Developing Areas,* Princeton, N.J., 1960, pp. 538 ff.

[8] *The Political Writings of Harold D. Lasswell,* Glencoe, Ill., 1951, pp. 495 ff.; Lasswell, *Power and Personality,* New York, 1946, pp. 148 ff.

istics and preconditions of the culture of democracy. What we have done amounts to a series of experiments intended to test some of these hypotheses. Rather than inferring the properties of democratic culture from political institutions or social conditions, we have attempted to specify its content by examining attitudes in a number of operating democratic systems. And rather than deriving the social-psychological preconditions of democracy from psychological theory, we have sought to determine whether and to what extent these relations actually exist in functioning democratic systems. We do not argue that our study will shut off speculation and provide the precise and tested propositions of a complete theory of democracy, but, rather, that some of these propositions will survive the test of empirical-quantitative analysis and some will not. This stage of experiment should focus and direct inquiry by providing some answers to old questions and suggesting some new questions.

In still another respect we hope to contribute to the development of a scientific theory of democracy. By far the greatest amount of empirical research on democratic attitudes has been done in the United States. In our study we have included, in addition to our own country, Britain, Germany, Italy, and Mexico. Why we selected these particular countries is discussed below. Our five-country study offers us the opportunity to escape from this American parochialism and to discover whether relations found in the American data are also encountered in democratic countries whose historical experiences and political and social structures differ from one another.

Types of Political Culture

In our comparison of the political cultures of five contemporary democracies, we employ a number of concepts and classifications which it will be useful to specify and define. We speak of the "political culture" of a nation rather than the "national character" or "modal personality," and of "political socialization" rather than of child development or child rearing in general terms. This is not because we reject the psychological and anthropological theories that relate political attitudes to other components of personality, or because we reject those theories that stress the relationship between child development in general terms and the induction of the child into his adult political roles and attitudes. Indeed, this study could

not have been made without the prior work of those historians, social philosophers, anthropologists, sociologists, psychologists, and psychiatrists who have been concerned with the relations between the psychological and political characteristics of nations. In particular, this study has been greatly influenced by the "culture-personality" or "psychocultural approach" to the study of political phenomena. This approach has developed a substantial theoretical and monographic literature in the past twenty-five years.[9]

We employ the term political culture for two reasons. First, if we are to ascertain the relations between political and nonpolitical attitudes and developmental patterns, we have to separate the former from the latter even though the boundary between them is not as sharp as our terminology would suggest. The term political culture thus refers to the specifically political orientations—attitudes toward the political system and its various parts, and attitudes toward the role of the self in the system. We speak of a political culture just as we can speak of an economic culture or a religious culture. It is a set of orientations toward a special set of social objects and processes.

But we also choose political *culture,* rather than some other special concept, because it enables us to utilize the conceptual frameworks and approaches of anthropology, sociology, and psychology. Our thinking is enriched when we employ, for example, such categories of anthropology and psychology as socialization, culture conflict, and acculturation. Similarly, our capacity to understand the emergence and transformation of political systems grows

[9] General theoretical statements of this approach are to be found *inter alia* in Ruth Benedict, *Patterns of Culture,* New York 1934; Alex Inkeles and Daniel Levinson, "National Character: The Study of Modal Personality and Socio-Cultural Systems," in Gardner Lindzey (ed.), *Handbook of Social Psychology,* Cambridge, Mass., 1954, Vol. II; Bert Kaplan (ed.), *Studying Personality Cross-Culturally,* Evanston, Ill., 1961; Abram Kardiner, *The Psychological Frontiers of Society,* New York, 1939; Kardiner, *The Individual and His Society,* New York, 1945; Clyde Kluckhohn, Henry Murray, and David Schneider, *Personality in Nature, Society, and Culture,* New York, 1955; Harold D. Lasswell, *Psychopathology and Politics* in *Political Writings;* Nathan Leites, "Psychocultural Hypotheses About Political Acts," in *World Politics,* Vol. I, 1948; Ralph Linton, *The Cultural Background of Personality,* New York, 1945; Margaret Mead, "The Study of National Character," in Daniel Lerner and Harold D. Lasswell, *The Policy Sciences,* Stanford, 1951. Particularly relevant to our work is Alex Inkeles, "National Character and Modern Political Systems," in Francis L. K. Hsu (ed.), *Psychological Anthropology,* Homewood, Ill., 1961. And one of the most important recent contributions to the theory of national character and political culture is Lucian W. Pye's *Politics, Personality, and Nation Building,* New Haven, 1962, which both develops a general theory of personality and political attitudes and applies this to a study of Burmese patterns.

Studies of Germany include: R. Brickner, *Is Germany Incurable?,* Philadelphia, 1943;

when we draw upon the body of theory and speculation concerned with the general phenomena of social structure and process.

We appreciate the fact that anthropologists use the term culture in a variety of ways, and that by bringing it into the conceptual vocabulary of political science we are in danger of importing its ambiguities as well as its advantages. Here we can only stress that we employ the concept of culture in only one of its many meanings: that of *psychological orientation toward social objects.* When we speak of the political culture of a society, we refer to the political system as internalized in the cognitions, feelings, and evaluations of its population. People are inducted into it just as they are socialized into nonpolitical roles and social systems. Conflicts of political cultures have much in common with other culture conflicts, and political acculturative processes are more understandable if we view them in terms of the resistances and the fusional and incorporative tendencies of cultural change in general.

Thus the concept of political culture helps us to escape from the diffuseness of such general anthropological terms as cultural ethos and from the assumption of homogeneity that the concept implies. It enables us to formulate hypotheses about relationships among the different components of culture and to test these hypotheses empirically. With the concept of political socialization we can go beyond the rather simple assumptions of the psychocultural school regarding relationships between general child development patterns and adult political attitudes. We can relate specific adult political attitudes and behavioral propensities to the manifest and latent political socialization experiences of childhood.

The political culture of a nation is the particular distribution of

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H. V. Dicks, "Personality Traits and National Socialist Ideology," *Human Relations,* Vol. III, 1950; David Rodnick, *Postwar Germans,* New Haven, 1948, and Bertram Schaffner, *Fatherland. A Study of Authoritarianism in the German Family,* New York, 1948.

Studies of the United States include: Geoffrey Gorer, *The American People,* New York, 1948; Margaret Mead, *And Keep Your Powder Dry,* New York, 1942, and David Riesman, *The Lonely Crowd,* New Haven, 1950.

Studies of Russia include: H. V. Dicks, "Observations on Contemporary Russian Behavior," *Human Relations,* Vol. V, 1952; Geoffrey Gorer and John Rickman, *The People of Great Russia,* London, 1949; Nathan Leites, *A Study of Bolshevism,* Glencoe, Ill., 1953; Margaret Mead, *Soviet Attitudes Toward Authority,* New York, 1951, and Dinko Tomasic, *The Impact of Russian Culture on Soviet Communism,* Glencoe, 1953.

For England, see Geoffrey Gorer, *Exploring English Character,* New York, 1955. For France, see Nathan Leites, *On the Game of Politics in France,* Stanford, 1959; Rhoda Metraux and Margaret Mead, *Themes in French Culture,* Stanford, 1954, and Lawrence Wylie, *Village in The Vaucluse,* Cambridge, Mass., 1957. And for Japan, see Ruth F. Benedict, *The Chrysanthemum and The Sword,* Boston, 1946.

patterns of orientation toward political objects among the members of the nation. Before we can arrive at such distributions, we need to have some way of systematically tapping individual orientations toward political objects. In other words, we need to define and specify modes of political orientation and classes of political objects. Our definition and classification of types of political orientation follow Parsons and Shils, as has been suggested elsewhere.[10] Orientation refers to the internalized aspects of objects and relationships. It includes (1) "cognitive orientation," that is, knowledge of and belief about the political system, its roles and the incumbents of these roles, its inputs, and its outputs; (2) "affective orientation," or feelings about the political system, its roles, personnel, and performance, and (3) "evaluational orientation," the judgments and opinions about political objects that typically involve the combination of value standards and criteria with information and feelings.

In classifying objects of political orientation, we start with the "general" political system. We deal here with the system as a whole and include such feelings as patriotism or alienation, such cognitions and evaluations of the nation as "large" or "small," "strong" or "weak," and of the polity as "democratic," "constitutional," or "socialistic." At the other extreme we distinguish orientations toward the "self" as political actor; the content and quality of norms of personal political obligation, and the content and quality of the sense of personal competence vis-à-vis the political system. In treating the component parts of the political system we distinguish, first, three broad classes of objects: (1) specific *roles* or *structures,* such as legislative bodies, executives, or bureaucracies; (2) *incumbents* of roles, such as particular monarchs, legislators, and administrators, and (3) particular public *policies, decisions,* or *enforcements* of decisions. These structures, incumbents, and decisions may in turn be classified broadly by whether they are involved either in the political or "input" process or in the adminstrative or "output" process. By political or input process we refer to the flow of demands from the society into the polity and the conversion of these demands into authoritative policies. Some structures that are predominantly involved in the input process are

[10] Gabriel A. Almond, "Comparative Political Systems," *Journal of Politics, Vol.* XVIII, 1956; Talcott Parsons and Edward A. Shils, *Toward a General Theory of Action,* Cambridge, Mass., 1951, pp. 53 ff.

political parties, interest groups, and the media of communication. By the administrative or output process we refer to that process by which authoritative policies are applied or enforced. Structures predominantly involved in this process would include bureaucracies and courts.

We realize that any such distinction does violence to the actual continuity of the political process and to the multifunctionality of political structures. Much broad policy is made in bureaucracies and by courts; and structures that we label as input, such as interest groups and political parties, are often concerned with the details of

FIGURE 1
Dimensions of Political Orientation

	1. System as General Object	*2. Input Objects*	*3. Output Objects*	*4. Self as Object*
Cognition				
Affect				
Evaluation				

administration and enforcement. What we are referring to is a difference in emphasis, and one that is of great importance in the classification of political cultures. The distinction we draw between participant and subject political cultures turns in part on the presence or absence of orientation toward specialized input structures. For our classification of political cultures it is not of great importance that these specialized input structures are also involved in the performance of enforcement functions and that the specialized administrative ones are involved in the performance of input functions. The important thing for our classification is what political objects individuals are oriented to, how they are oriented to them, and whether these objects are predominantly involved in the "upward" flow of policy making or in the "downward" flow of policy enforcement. We shall treat this problem in greater detail when we define the major classes of political culture.

We can consolidate what we have thus far said about individual orientations toward the polity in a simple 3 x 4 matrix. Figure I tells us that the political orientation of an individual can be tapped systematically if we explore the following:

1. What knowledge does he have of his nation and of his political

system in general terms, its history, size, location, power, "constitutional" characteristics, and the like? What are his feelings toward these systemic characteristics? What are his more or less considered opinions and judgments of them?

2. What knowledge does he have of the structures and roles, the various political elites, and the policy proposals that are involved in the upward flow of policy making? What are his feelings and opinions about these structures, leaders, and policy proposals?

3. What knowledge does he have of the downward flow of policy enforcement, the structures, individuals, and decisions involved in these processes? What are his feelings and opinions of them?

FIGURE 2
Types of Political Culture

	System as General Object	*Input Objects*	*Output Objects*	*Self as Active Participant*
Parochial	0	0	0	0
Subject	1	0	1	0
Participant	1	1	1	1

4. How does he perceive of himself as a member of his political system? What knowledge does he have of his rights, powers, obligations, and of strategies of access to influence? How does he feel about his capabilities? What norms of participation or of performance does he acknowledge and employ in formulating political judgments, or in arriving at opinions?

Characterizing the political culture of a nation means, in effect, filling in such a matrix for a valid sample of its population. The political culture becomes the frequency of different kinds of cognitive, affective, and evaluative orientations toward the political system in general, its input and output aspects, and the self as political actor.

Parochial Political Culture. When this frequency of orientations to specialized political objects of the four kinds specified in Figure 1 approaches zero, we can speak of the political culture as a parochial one. The political cultures of African tribal societies and autonomous local communities referred to by Coleman[11] would fall into this category. In these societies there are no specialized political roles: headmanship, chieftainship, "shamanship" are diffuse politi-

[11] Almond and Coleman, *Politics of the Developing Areas,* p. 254.

cal-economic-religious roles, and for members of these societies the political orientations to these roles are not separated from their religious and social orientations. A parochial orientation also implies the comparative absence of expectations of change initiated by the political system. The parochial expects nothing from the political system. Similarly, in the centralized African chiefdoms and kingdoms to which Coleman refers, the political cultures would be predominantly parochial, although the development of somewhat more specialized roles in these societies might mean the beginnings of more differentiated political orientations. Even larger-scale and more differentiated polities, however, may have predominantly parochial cultures. Rustow's characterization of the Ottoman Empire gives us an example:

"The authority of government, based almost entirely on taxation, the maintenance of an army, and an age-old tradition of dynastic rule, was felt most immediately in the towns, less directly in the villages, and hardly at all among the tribes. The provinces were ruled by military governors or landed feudatories with only occasional interference from the capital. The nomadic tribes lived in what an apt Arabic idiom calls the 'land of insolence,' respecting no outside authority. The city economies were largely regulated by the autonomous guilds of the craftsmen. In the country at large, each village was a self-contained unit economically as well as politically. The principal emissary of authority to the village, the tax gatherer, was less of a government official than a private contractor or subcontractor who recompensed himself as liberally as he could for the advances he had paid to his employers. Often the village was responsible for tax payments collectively—a circumstance which further reduced the control of authority over the *individual* peasant. Law itself was largely beyond the scope of the ruler, whose decrees in a few points supplanted or modified a universal structure of religious law and local custom."[12]

In this kind of polity the specialized agencies of central government might hardly touch the consciousness of townsmen, villagers, and tribesmen. Their orientations would tend to be unspecialized political-economic-religious ones, congruently related to the similarly unspecialized structures and operations of their tribal, religious, occupational, and local communities.

What we have been describing is extreme or pure parochialism

[12] *Ibid.*, pp. 378-79.

that occurs in simpler traditional systems where political specialization is minimal. Parochialism in more differentiated political systems is likely to be affective and normative rather than cognitive. That is to say, the remote tribesmen in Nigeria or Ghana may be aware in a dim sort of way of the existence of a central political regime. But his feelings toward it are uncertain or negative, and he has not internalized any norms to regulate his relations to it.

The Subject Political Culture. The second major type of political culture listed in Figure 2 is the subject culture. Here there is a high frequency of orientations toward a differentiated political system and toward the output aspects of the system, but orientations toward specifically input objects, and toward the self as an active participant, approach zero. The subject is aware of specialized governmental authority; he is affectively oriented to it, perhaps taking pride in it, perhaps disliking it; and he evaluates it either as legitimate or as not. But the relationship is toward the system on the general level, and toward the output, administrative, or "downward flow" side of the political system; it is essentially a passive relationship, although there is, as we shall show below, a limited form of competence that is appropriate in a subject culture.

Again we are speaking of the pure subject orientation that is likely to exist in a society where there is no differentiated input structure. The subject orientation in political systems that have developed democratic institutions is likely to be affective and normative rather than cognitive. Thus a French royalist is aware of democratic institutions; he simply does not accord legitimacy to them.

The Participant Political Culture. The third major type of political culture, the participant culture, is one in which the members of the society tend to be explicitly oriented to the system as a whole and to both the political and administrative structures and processes: in other words, to both the input and output aspects of the political system. Individual members of the participant polity may be favorably or unfavorably oriented to the various classes of political objects. They tend to be oriented toward an "activist" role of the self in the polity, though their feelings and evaluations of such a role may vary from acceptance to rejection, as we shall show below.

This threefold classification of political cultures does not assume that one orientation replaces the others. The subject culture does

not eliminate diffuse orientations to the primary and intimate structures of community. To the diffuse orientations to lineage groups, religious community, and village it adds a specialized subject orientation to the governmental institutions. Similarly, the participant culture does not supplant the subject and parochial patterns of orientation. The participant culture is an additional stratum that may be added to and combined with the subject and parochial cultures. Thus the citizen of a participant polity is not only oriented toward active participation in politics, but is subject to law and authority and is a member of more diffuse primary groups.

To be sure, adding participant orientations to subject and parochial orientations does not leave these "earlier" orientations unchanged. The parochial orientations must adapt when new and more specialized orientations enter into the picture, just as both parochial and subject orientations change when participant orientations are acquired. Actually, some of the most significant differences in the political cultures of the five democracies included in our study turn on the extent and the way that parochial, subject, and participant orientations have combined, fused, or meshed together within the individuals of the polity.[13]

Another caution is necessary. Our classification does not imply homogeneity or uniformity of political cultures. Thus political systems with predominantly participant cultures will, even in the limiting case, include both subjects and parochials. The imperfections of the processes of political socialization, personal preferences, and limitations in intelligence or in opportunities to learn will continue to produce subjects and parochials, even in well-established and stable democracies. Similarly, parochials will continue to exist even in "high" subject cultures.

Thus there are two aspects of cultural heterogeneity or cultural "mix." The "citizen" is a particular mix of participant, subject, and parochial orientations, and the civic culture is a particular mix of citizens, subjects, and parochials. For the citizen we need concepts of proportions, thresholds, and congruence to handle the ways in which his constellation of participant, subject, and parochial attitudes is related to effective performance. For the civic culture, which we shall treat in detail below, we need the same concepts of proportions, thresholds, and congruence to handle the problem of what "mix" of citizens, subjects, and parochials is related to the ef-

[13] See below, chaps. viii and x.

fective performance of democratic systems. When we compare the political cultures of our five countries we shall have the occasion to discuss these questions again.

Our threefold classification of participant, subject, and parochial is only the beginning of a classification of political cultures. Each one of these major classes has its subclasses, and our classification has left out entirely the dimension of political development and cultural change. Let us look into this latter question first, since it will enable us to handle the problem of subclassification with a better set of conceptual tools.

Political cultures may or may not be congruent with the structures of the political system. A congruent political structure would be one appropriate for the culture: in other words, where political cognition in the population would tend to be accurate and where affect and evaluation would tend to be favorable. In general, a parochial, subject, or participant culture would be most congruent with, respectively, a traditional political structure, a centralized authoritarian structure, and a democratic political structure. A parochial political culture that was congruent with its structure would have a high rate of cognitive orientations and high rates of positive affective and evaluative orientations to the diffuse structures of the tribal or village community. A subject political culture congruent with its system would have a high rate of cognition and high positive rates of the other two types of orientation to the specialized political system as a whole, and to its administrative or output aspects; while the congruent participant culture would be characterized by high and positive rates of orientation to all four classes of political objects.

Political systems change, and we are justified in assuming that culture and structure are often incongruent with each other. Particularly in these decades of rapid cultural change, the most numerous political systems may be those that have failed to attain congruence, or are moving from one form of polity to another.

To represent schematically these relations of congruence/incongruence between political structure and culture, we present Figure 3.

Any one of the three major types of political cultures may be located on the matrix in Figure 3. Thus we may speak of "allegiant"[14] parochial, subject, and participant cultures when cognitive, affective, and evaluative orientations to the appropriate

[14] We have borrowed the concept "Allegiant" from Robert E. Lane's book, *Political Ideology*, New York, 1962, pp. 170 ff.

objects of the polity approach unity, or perfect congruence between culture and structure. But congruence between culture and structure may be best represented in the form of a scale. The limits of congruence between culture and structure are established in columns 1 and 2 of the figure. The congruence is strong when the frequencies of positive orientations approach unity (+); the congruence is weak when the political structure is cognized but the frequency of positive feeling and evaluation approaches indifference or zero. Incongruence between political culture and structure begins when the indifference point is passed and negative affect and evaluation

FIGURE 3

*Congruence/Incongruence Between Political Culture and Structure**

	Allegiance	*Apathy*	*Alienation*
Cognitive Orientation	+	+	+
Affective Orientation	+	0	–
Evaluative Orientation	+	0	–

* A (+) sign means a high frequency of awareness, or of positive feeling, or of evaluation toward political objects. A (–) sign means a high frequency of negative evaluations or feelings. A (0) means a high frequency of indifference.

grow in frequency (—). We may also think of this scale as one of stability/instability. As we move toward the first column in the figure, we are moving toward an allegiant situation: one in which attitudes and institutions match; as we move toward the third column, we are moving toward alienation: where attitudes tend to reject political institutions or structures.

But this scale is only a beginning, since the incongruence may take the form of a simple rejection of a particular set of role incumbents (e.g., a particular dynasty and its bureaucracy); or it may be an aspect of a systemic change, that is, a shift from a simpler pattern of political culture to a more complex one. We have already suggested that all political cultures (with the exception of the simple parochial ones) are mixed. Thus a participant culture contains individuals who are oriented as subjects and parochials; and a subject culture will contain some parochials. We use the term "systemically mixed" political cultures to refer to those in which there are significant proportions of both the simpler and more complex patterns of orientations. When we say these cultures are systemically mixed, we do not intend to suggest that there is an inevitable tendency for the development to complete itself. The

process of political culture change may stabilize at a point that falls short of congruence with a centralized authoritarian structure or a democratic one; or the development may take a course such as in Britain, where a slow, continuous pattern of cultural change was accompanied by correspondingly continuous changes in structure. Political cultures may remain systemically mixed for a very long time indeed, as witnessed by the experience of France, Germany, and Italy in the nineteenth and present centuries. When they do remain mixed, however, there are inevitable strains between culture and structure, and a characteristic tendency toward structural instability.

If the three types of political culture represented in Figure 2 are the pure forms of political culture, we may distinguish three types of systemically mixed political cultures: (1) the parochial-subject culture, (2) the subject-participant culture, and (3) the parochial-participant culture.

The Parochial-Subject Culture. This is a type of political culture in which a substantial portion of the population has rejected the exclusive claims of diffuse tribal, village, or feudal authority and has developed allegiance toward a more complex political system with specialized central governmental structures. This is the classic case of kingdom building out of relatively undifferentiated units. The chronicles and histories of most nations include this early stage of shift from local parochialism to centralized authority. But the shift may stabilize at a point that falls short of a fully developed subject culture. The loosely articulated African kingdoms, and even the Ottoman Empire, are examples of stable, mixed subject-parochial cultures where the latter predominates and central authority takes the form of a primarily extractive, dimly cognized set of political objects. The problem of cultural change from parochial to subject patterns is a difficult one, and unstable moves back and forth are common in the early history of nations.[15]

What we are suggesting is that the composition of this class may be viewed as subvarieties arranged on a continuum. At one ex-

[15] The classic case is that of the succession to King Solomon in the kingdom of Israel. When Solomon died, the parochial (tribal and lineage) leaders of Israel came to his son Rehoboam, saying, "Thy father made our yoke hard; but do thou now make lighter the hard service of thy father, and his heavy yoke which he put upon us and we will serve thee." Rehoboam's older counselors advised him to lighten the yoke and pay more respect to the autonomy of the persisting parochial tribal and lineage groups. His younger men—fanatical modernizers—offered him the celebrated advice to tell the traditional leaders of the people, "My little finger is thicker than my father's loins. . . . If

treme we might place the political culture under Prussian absolutism, which went rather far in suppressing parochial orientations; at the other, the political culture in the Ottoman Empire, which never went further than an extractive external relationship to its constituent, more or less parochial units. The contrast between Prussian and British absolutism is an interesting one from this point of view. We have already made the point that even "high" political cultures are mixes, and that the individual orientations comprising them are also mixes. In Prussia, in the typical individual case, we may assume that the intensity of the subject orientation was much stronger than that of the parochial, while in Britain we suggest there was greater balance, and, furthermore, the parochial and subject strata were more congruent. These *psychological* mixes may explain the contrast between the eighteenth century Prussian and British authority images: the first, of *Kadavergehorsam;* the second, of the self-confident, if deferential, country squire, merchant, and yeoman. Similarly, the *cultural* mix in Prussia probably involved more of a polarization between a persisting parochial subculture—exemplified in the extreme case by the peasantry on the East German estates—and a subject subculture among those groups most affected by the impact of Prussian absolutism: the bureaucracy down to the lowest levels and the increasingly large proportion of Prussian manpower undergoing the Prussian army experience.

Thus change from a parochial to a subject political culture may stabilize at a number of points on the continuum and produce different political, psychological, and cultural mixes. We also suggest that the kind of mix that results has great significance for the stability and performance of the political system.

The Subject-Participant Culture. The way in which the shift from a parochial to a subject culture is solved greatly affects the way in which the shift from a subject to a participant culture takes place. As Pye points out, the inculcation of a sense of national loyalty and identification, and of a propensity to obey the regulations of central authority, is the first priority problem in the

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my father has burdened you with a heavy yoke, I will add to your yoke; if my father hath chastised you with whips, then will I chastise you with scorpion thorns" (I Kings 12:4-11). The consequences of Rehoboam's acceptance of the advice of the young modernizers, as told in the rest of *Kings,* suggest that too violent an attack on parochialism may cause both parochial and subject orientations to decline to apathy and alienation. The results are political fragmentation and national destruction.

emerging nations.[16] In the shift from a subject to a participant culture, the parochial and local autonomies, if they survive, may contribute to the development of a democratic infrastructure. Certainly this is what happened in the British case. Local authorities, municipal corporations, religious communities, and merchant groups in which the tradition of guild freedoms still persisted became the first interest groups in the developing British democracy. The lesson is a significant one. Precisely because the development of a subject culture in England stopped short of destroying local and parochial structures and cultures, these could become available at a later time and in modified form as an influence network that could relate Britons as competent citizens to their government. The more massive impact of the Prussian state authority drove parochial institutions into privacy, or assimilated them to state authority. Thus the era of democratization in Germany began with a great gap between the private and public spheres, and the infrastructure that emerged failed to arc across from individual, family, and community to the institutions of governmental authority.

In the mixed subject-participant culture a substantial part of the population has acquired specialized input orientations and an activist set of self-orientations, while most of the remainder of the population continue to be oriented toward an authoritarian governmental structure and have a relatively passive set of self-orientations. In the Western European examples of this type of political culture —France, Germany, and Italy in the nineteenth and present centuries—there was a characteristic pattern of structural instability with an alternation of authoritarian and democratic governments. But more than structural instability results from this kind of cultural mix. The cultural patterns themselves are influenced by the structural instability and the cultural stalemate. Because participant orientations have spread among only a part of the population, and because their legitimacy is challenged by the persisting subject subculture and suspended during authoritarian interludes, the participant-oriented stratum of the population cannot become a competent, self-confident, experienced body of citizens. They tend to remain democratic aspirants. That is, they accept the norms of a participant culture, but their sense of competence is not based on experience or on a confident sense of legitimacy. Furthermore, the structural instabilities that frequently accompany the mixed sub-

[16] Pye, *Politics, Personality, and Nation Building*, pp. 3 ff.

ject-participant culture, the frequent ineffectiveness of the democratic infrastructure and of the governmental system, tend to produce alienative tendencies among the democratically oriented elements of the population. Taken together, this kind of a political cultural stalemate may produce a syndrome with components of idealist-aspiration and alienation from the political system, including the infrastructure of parties, interest groups, and press.

The mixed subject-participant culture, if it persists over a long period of time, also changes the character of the subject subculture. During the democratic interludes the authoritarian-oriented groups must compete with the democratic ones within a formally democratic framework. In other words, they must develop a defensive political infrastructure of their own. While this does not transform the subject subculture into a democratic one, it certainly changes it, often to a significant degree. It is not accidental that authoritarian regimes that arise in political systems with mixed subject-participant cultures tend to have populistic overtones, and in the more recent period of totalitarianism these regimes have even adopted the democratic infrastructure in a grossly distorted form.

The Parochial-Participant Culture. In the parochial-participant culture we have the contemporary problem of cultural development in many of the emerging nations. In most of these countries the political culture is predominantly parochial. The structural norms that have been introduced are usually participant; for congruence, therefore, they require a participant culture. Thus the problem is to develop specialized output and input orientations simultaneously. It is not surprising that most of these political systems, always threatened by parochial fragmentation, teeter like acrobats on tightropes, leaning precariously at one time toward authoritarianism, at another toward democracy. There is no structure on either side to lean on, neither a bureaucracy resting upon loyal subjects, nor an infrastructure arising from responsible and competent citizens. The problem of development from parochial to participant culture seems, on first look, to be a hopeless one; but if we remember that most parochial autonomies and loyalties survive, we may at least say that the development of participant cultures in some of the emerging nations has not yet been precluded. The problems are to penetrate the parochial systems without destroying them on the output side, and to transform them into interest groups on the input side.

Political Subculture and Role Culture

We have already made the point that most political cultures are heterogeneous. Even the most fully developed participant cultures will contain surviving strata of subjects and parochials. And even within that part of the culture that is oriented toward participation there will be persistent and significant differences in political orientation. Adapting the terminology of Ralph Linton to our purposes, we use the term "subculture" to refer to these component parts of political cultures.[17] But we have to distinguish at least two types of subcultural cleavage. First, the term may be used to refer to population strata that are persistently oriented in one way toward policy inputs and outputs, but are "allegiantly" oriented toward the political structure. Thus in the United States the left wing of the Democratic party and the right wing of the Republican party accept as legitimate the structures of American politics and government, but differ persistently from each other on a whole range of domestic and foreign policy issues. We refer to these as policy subcultures.

But the kind of cleavage we are most interested in is that which occurs in systemically mixed systems. Thus in a mixed parochial-subject culture one part of the population would be oriented toward diffuse traditional authorities, and another toward the specialized structure of the central authoritarian system. A mixed parochial-subject culture may actually be characterized by a "vertical" as well as a horizontal cleavage. Thus if the polity includes two or more traditional components, then there will be, in addition to the emerging subject subculture, the persisting separate cultures of the formally merged traditional units.

The mixed subject-participant culture is a more familiar and even more contemporary problem in the West. A successful shift from a subject to a participant culture involves the diffusion of positive orientations toward a democratic infrastructure, the acceptance of norms of civic obligation, and the development of a sense of civic competence among a substantial proportion of the population. These orientations may combine with subject and parochial orientations, or they may conflict. England in the nineteenth and present centuries moved toward and attained a political culture that combined these orientations. It is true, of course,

[17] Ralph Linton, *The Cultural Background of Personality.*

that the Radicals in the first part of the nineteenth century and the Socialist and Labour left-wing groups at a later time were opposed to the monarchy and the House of Lords. But these tendencies resulted in the transformation, not the elimination, of these institutions. Political subcultures in England, consequently, are examples of our first type of cleavage, the one based on persistent policy differences rather than upon fundamentally different orientations toward political structure.

France is the classic case of the second type of political cultural heterogeneity. The French Revolution did not result in a homogeneous orientation toward a republican political structure; instead, it polarized the French population into two subcultures, one of participant aspiration and one dominated by subject and parochial orientations. The structure of the French political system has been at issue ever since that time, and what was at first a bipolarization of political culture was followed by further fragmentations, as the Socialists followed the Jacobins, and the Communists the Socialists, and as the right wing divided into a "rallied" and an "unrallied" part.

Vertical subcultural phenomena of this kind may be encountered in subject and participant cultures, or may compound the cultural fragmentation of mixed subject-participant cultures. We refer to the patterns of orientation in multinational polities, such as the Russian and the Austro-Hungarian empires. Here members of special ethnic-linguistic-national groups rejected the legitimacy of the polity that assimilated them, and persisted in their allegiance to their earlier political systems. Thus a vertical fragmentation combined with a subject-participant fragmentation to produce structural instabilities and disintegrative tendencies of a very high order.

On the other hand, policy subcultures may turn into structural ones, as, for example, in the case of the Confederacy during the American Civil War. Here the alternative appeared to be the formation of a separate polity. In many European countries the failure of the dominant elites to respond to the moderate demands for structural and policy changes put forward by the left in the first half of the nineteenth century led to the development of the structurally alienated, revolutionary socialist, syndicalist, and anarchist left of the second half of the nineteenth century.

In England, the Old Commonwealth, the United States, and the Scandinavian countries, the issues of political structure were re-

solved in the course of the nineteenth and early twentieth centuries: what emerged were homogeneous political cultures, in the sense of structural orientation. The subcultural phenomena in these countries turn on persistent policy differences. Left and right both tend to accept the existing political structure and differ only on the substance of policy and political personnel. What is most interesting is that in this group of countries in the last decades, the policy differences have tended to become less sharp, and there is a larger common body of agreement. In other words, subcultural cleavage has attenuated and cultural homogeneity has extended from structural orientation into policy orientation.

This brief discussion of political subculture serves only to introduce the concept. Some of its implications and consequences will be considered at later points in the book. But we would mislead the reader if we were to suggest that our study treats proportionally each aspect of political culture. Our study stresses orientation to political structure and process, not orientation to the substance of political demands and outputs. We need not apologize for this emphasis, but must point out how this choice may tend to obscure significant dimensions of political culture, and significant relationships between general psychocultural patterns and the substance of politics and public policy. A study that stresses orientation to public policy would require at least as much of a major effort as the present one. It would have to relate systematically types of public policy orientations to types of social structure and cultural values, as well as to the socialization processes with which they are related. A similarly rigorous separation of public policy orientation, general culture orientation, and socialization patterns would also be necessary, in order for us to discover the real character and direction of relationships among these phenomena.

We have to introduce still another complication, that of "role culture." The more complex political systems are characterized by specialized structures of roles—bureaucratic, military, political executive, party, interest group, media of communication. These centers of initiative and influence in the political system also produce cultural heterogeneity. The heterogeneity results from two sources. First, the elites who perform these roles may be recruited from particular political subcultures; and second, the process of induction and socialization into these roles produces different

values, skills, loyalties, and cognitive maps. Since these elites are crucial in the formulation and execution of policy, the kinds of cultural differences existing among them may seriously affect the performance of political systems.

For example, in both Germany and France the bureaucratic and military elites were traditionally recruited from the aristocratic and authoritarian subcultures. In addition, the role socialization of these elites reinforced the antidemocratic tendencies and were significant obstacles to the emergence of homogeneous participant cultures.

But role culture can be "progressive" as well as "regressive" from a developmental point of view. In many of the contemporary emerging nations the impulse toward political modernization is concentrated in the civil and military bureaucracy and among the political party elites. These elites may aspire toward the development of powerful authoritarian political systems, toward democratic ones, or some combination of the two, without fully appreciating the complexities involved in this pattern of cultural change.

In stable, legitimate political systems, role cultures vary in content simply because the tasks performed by these role incumbents and the "corps spirit" to which they are exposed produce differences in cognition, affect, and evaluation. But again we may differentiate patterns of role cleavage according to whether they involve differences in structural orientation or simply in policy orientation. In a stable political system, differences in role culture tend to be limited to the substance of policy. The legitimacy of the structure of the system is accepted. In unstable ones policy differences combine with differences in structural orientation and may result in cultural fragmentation at the elite level. Thus the fragmentation of general political culture in France was compounded by fragmentation in role cultures, with the higher civil service and the officer corps oriented to an authoritarian structure, and a large part of the political party, interest groups, and communications elites oriented to a democratic structure. Indeed, fragmentation at the level of political elites may persist simultaneously with a trend toward homogeneity at the mass cultural level. The recent experience of the British Labour party is a case in point. Sharp differences with the Conservative party over domestic and foreign policy are concentrated among the constituency militants. For the rank-and-file

Labour party voter these issues tend to have little salience. His ties with both class and party have tended to loosen as his economic and social opportunities have improved.

The Civic Culture: A Mixed Political Culture

At an earlier point we discussed the historical origins of the civic culture and the functions of that culture in the process of social change. Much of this book will offer an analysis and description of the culture and of the role it plays in the maintenance of a democratic political system. It will be useful therefore to spell out, if only briefly, some of its main characteristics.

The civic culture is not the political culture that one finds described in civics textbooks, which prescribe the way in which citizens ought to act in a democracy. The norms of citizen behavior found in these texts stress the participant aspects of political culture. The democratic citizen is expected to be active in politics and to be involved. Furthermore, he is supposed to be rational in his approach to politics, guided by reason, not by emotion. He is supposed to be well informed and to make decisions—for instance, his decision on how to vote—on the basis of careful calculation as to the interests and the principles he would like to see furthered. This culture, with its stress on rational participation within the input structures of politics, we can label the "rationality-activist" model of political culture. The civic culture shares much with this rationality-activist model; it is, in fact, such a culture *plus something else.* It does stress the participation of individuals in the political input process. In the civic cultures described in this volume we shall find high frequencies of political activity, of exposure to political communications, of political discussion, of concern with political affairs. But there is *something else.*

In the first place, the civic culture is an allegiant participant culture. Individuals are not only oriented to political input, they are oriented positively to the input structures and the input process. In other words, to use the terms introduced earlier, the civic culture is a participant political culture in which the political culture and political structure are congruent.

More important, in the civic culture participant political orientations combine with and do not replace subject and parochial political orientations. Individuals become participants in the politi-

cal process, but they do not give up their orientations as subjects nor as parochials. Furthermore, not only are these earlier orientations maintained, alongside the participant political orientations, but the subject and parochial orientations are congruent with the participant political orientations. The nonparticipant, more traditional political orientations tend to limit the individual's commitment to politics and to make that commitment milder. In a sense, the subject and parochial orientations "manage" or keep in place the participant political orientations. Thus attitudes favorable to participation within the political system play a major role in the civic culture, but so do such nonpolitical attitudes as trust in other people and social participation in general. The maintenance of these more traditional attitudes *and their fusion* with the participant orientations lead to a balanced political culture in which political activity, involvement, and rationality exist but are balanced by passivity, traditionality, and commitment to parochial values.

A more precise description of the civic culture and of its relevance for democracy forms the major substance of this volume.

Micro- and Macropolitics. Political Culture as the Connecting Link

Developments in social science methods in recent decades have enabled us to penetrate more deeply into the motivational basis of the political attitudes and behavior of individuals and groups. A substantial literature has accumulated, which includes studies of electoral attitudes and behavior, analyses of the relations between ideological and public policy tendencies and deeper attitude or personality characteristics, psychopolitical biographies of political leaders, studies of political attitudes in particular social groupings, and the like. Rokkan and Campbell refer to this focus on the individual, his political attitudes and motivations, whether as individual or as a member of a sample of a larger population, as "micropolitics," distinguishing it as a research approach from "macropolitics," or the more traditional concern of the student of politics with the structure and function of political systems, institutions, and agencies, and their effects on public policy.[18]

While the relationship between individual political psychology and the behavior of political systems and subsystems is clear in

[18] Stein Rokkan and Angus Campbell, "Norway And the United States of America," in *International Social Science Journal*, Vol. XII, No. 1, 1960, pp. 69 ff.

CHAPTER 13

GROUP DIFFERENCES IN POLITICAL ORIENTATION

THE populations of nations are composed of many subgroups—social classes, religious and ethnic groups, age groups, and the like. In our survey we sought to isolate a number of group characteristics that we believed might be correlated with differences in political orientation. In this chapter we shall comment in detail on two of these: education and sex. In all five of our countries, educational level is the variable that has the strongest relationship with political attitudes. Differences in the political attitudes and behavior of women are important in understanding the role of the family and political socialization patterns in different kinds of political systems. We shall comment more briefly on the effects of social class and religion.

The theme we are pursuing here is of great importance for understanding the functioning of political systems. For the stability and performance of democratic political systems it matters a great deal how men and women, occupational and income groups, educational and religious groups are oriented toward the political structure. If, for example, women are predominantly parochials, or subjects, this will have important implications for the role of the family in the political system. If relatively uneducated strata of the population, or the low income groups, or the Catholic elements of the population are predominantly parochials, or subjects, this will affect the interest groups and party system, and the communications and electoral processes.

We have already introduced the theme of political subculture both in our theory and in reporting our findings. In our theory we stressed that most political cultures are heterogeneous; that they are "mixes." A predominantly democratic culture will contain subjects and parochials as well as citizens, and a predominantly subject culture will contain parochials and may contain some citizens as well

as subjects. We differentiated two kinds of subculture: those based on differences in structural orientation and those based on differences in policy orientation. Our study has stressed the structural aspects of political culture, and in what follows we shall be primarily concerned with the extent to which subnational groupings differ in their orientations to the structure of the political system.

As we reported above, the subcultural patterns of the five countries came out most sharply in the realm of partisanship. In Italy, for example, the members of the left and right parties had predominantly antagonistic images of each other, and the social distance between political parties, as reflected in attitudes toward interparty marriage, was greater than in the other countries. We observed similar tendencies, though not so extreme, in Mexico, Germany, and Britain. Partisanship was least sharp and fragmented in the United States. Where political parties are pitted against one another with a strong and exclusive antagonism, we may say the political culture is fragmented. The clerical right and the Communist left in Italy are oriented differently toward politics in both a structural and policy sense, and these differences are associated with sharp differences in life style and social values. Where antagonism is characteristic only of the extreme wings of political parties, or only of a minority of militants; where the bulk of left and right party supporters share common structural orientations and many policy orientations; and where primary groups can bear the impact of partisan differences, the political culture is predominantly consensual. Or, more precisely, we may say that the shared orientations moderate the impact of the unshared ones; that a common political culture contains subcultural tendencies. That subcultural tendencies in the United States and Britain are contained in a widely shared culture of social trust, civic cooperativeness, and open partisanship is reported a number of times above (see Chapters 5, 7, and 10).

In our examination of the political orientations of demographic groups, we are in two respects limited by our data. First, reliable comparisons of demographic subgroupings would have required a larger sample. With our sample of approximately 1,000 in each country, we rapidly run out of cases as we introduce controls to determine whether a particular attitude difference results from a demographic characteristic other than the one under examination. The second limitation is more serious: the substance of our interview stressed attitudes toward the structure of political systems,

rather than policy orientations or social attitudes and styles of life. Subcultural differences are ideological as well as structural, and they are associated with social ideologies and life patterns; thus we shall be able to develop the relationship between demographic groups and political subcultural tendencies in only a limited way. Briefly, we shall be able to show only how educational and social class groups, men and women, and religious groups constitute political subcultures within the framework of our parochial-subject-citizen classification.

Education and Political Orientation

Throughout this study we have reported differences among several educational groups. As in most other studies of political attitudes, our data show that educational attainment appears to have the most important demographic effect on political attitudes. Among the demographic variables usually investigated—sex, place of residence, occupation, income, age, and so on—none compares with the educational variable in the extent to which it seems to determine political attitudes. The uneducated man or the man with limited education is a different political actor from the man who has achieved a higher level of education.

There are a number of reasons for this. One reason, of course, is that educational differences are associated with differences in other social characteristics. Individuals who have achieved higher education, compared with those who have not, are likely to have higher incomes, to be in higher-status occupations, to be males, and so on—and all these characteristics tend in the same attitudinal direction. But even when these additional factors are controlled, respondents of lower and higher education still differ substantially in political attitudes. The main reason for this is probably that education has so many different kinds of effects. For one thing, people do *learn* in schools: they learn specific subjects as well as skills useful for political participation. And they learn the norms of political participation as well. Much of this learning may be through direct teaching; some of it may be more indirect. Not only does education influence political perspectives, it also places the individual in social situations where he meets others of like educational attainment, and this tends to reinforce the effect of his own education.

The way in which education affects an individual's political attitudes was discussed in Chapter 12. Here we concentrate, not on the

process by which education acts upon political orientation, but on the specific ways in which those who have achieved education differ in their political orientations from those who have not. For this purpose, it is useful to have data from more than one nation. We can ask whether there are uniform differences among educational groups observable in all nations, or whether the nations differ in this respect. Does education create differing political subcultures in each nation, and, if so, does the educated subculture differ in the same way from the uneducated subculture in all the nations?

Since most of the data pertaining to education have been presented in other parts of the text, we need only summarize those findings here. Three types of differences between the political orientations of the more and the less educated respondents can be discerned. First, there are those political orientations that are strongly affected by higher education—and affected the same way in all five nations. Second, there are some political attitudes that change relatively little from one educational group to another. Here, too, there is cross-national uniformity, but the uniformity lies in the absence of differences in attitude among educational groups. Third, there are some political orientations upon which educational level has a different effect from nation to nation. In some nations those with higher education have a higher frequency of a particular orientation; in other nations it is those with lower education who have the higher frequency of the same orientation; or in one nation educational groups differ in their frequency of the particular orientation, while in other nations they will not so differ.

It is of great interest, and among the most important facts we discovered, that most of the relationships between education and political orientation are of the first type: educational groups differ from one another substantially, and in a similar way, in each nation. The manifestations of this cross-national uniformity are the following:

(1) The more educated person is more aware of the impact of government on the individual than is the person of less education (Chapter 3);

(2) The more educated individual is more likely to report that he follows politics and pays attention to election campaigns than is the individual of less education (Chapter 3);

(3) The more educated individual has more political information (Chapter 3);

(4) The more educated individual has opinions on a wider range of political subjects; the focus of his attention to politics is wider (Chapter 3);

(5) The more educated individual is more likely to engage in political discussion (Chapter 4);

(6) The more educated individual feels free to discuss politics with a wider range of people (Chapter 4). Those with less education are more likely to report that there are many people with whom they avoid such discussions;

(7) The more educated individual is more likely to consider himself capable of influencing the government; this is reflected both in responses to questions on what one could do about an unjust law (Chapter 7) and in respondents' scores on the subjective competence scale (Chapter 9).

The above list refers to specifically political orientations, which vary the same way in all five nations. In addition, our evidence shows that:

(8) The more educated individual is more likely to be a member —and an active member—of some organization (Chapter 11); and

(9) The more educated individual is more likely to express confidence in his social environment: to believe that other people are trustworthy and helpful (Chapter 10).

In all nine relationships the differences between those with relatively little education and those who are more highly educated are substantial. In all the nations, in almost all the cases, those with no more than primary education and those with some university training differ by at least twenty percentage points, and often by substantially more, in the frequency with which a particular attitude is held. The attitude dimensions affected this way are ones that common sense and previous research would lead us to expect: information about politics and awareness of the activities of the government, for example. Yet the findings deserve some emphasis, for they illustrate that, despite national differences in political history and the current context of politics, and despite wide differences in the educational and social systems, strikingly uniform cross-national patterns can be found.

In each of these nations, it would seem, the educated classes possess the keys to political participation and involvement, while those with less education are less well equipped. In each nation the

educated classes are more likely to be cognitively aware of politics (to be aware of the impact of government, to have information about government, to follow politics in the various media); to have political opinions on a wide range of subjects; and to engage in political discussions. The more highly educated are also more likely to consider themselves competent to influence the government and free to engage in political discussions. This set of orientations, widely distributed among those with high education and much less widely distributed among those with low education, constitutes what one might consider the minimum requirements for political participation. More complex attitudes and behavior depend upon such basic orientations as awareness of the political system, information about it, and some exposure to its operations. It is just this basic set of orientations that those of limited education tend not to have.

It is interesting, furthermore, that the orientations that distinguish the educated from the relatively uneducated tend, with one exception, to be affectively neutral. So far we have not shown either that educated individuals necessarily support the political system more, or that they are more hostile to it. We have merely shown that they are more aware of it. Nor do we know the content of the political discussions that go on on the higher educated level: we know only that there are more such discussions on that level than on any other. The educated individual is, in a sense, available for political participation. Education, however, does not determine the content of that participation.

Though educational differences in political orientation show a striking cross-national uniformity, this does not imply that differences among nations disappear when one considers matched educational groups. As we have pointed out, respondents on various educational levels within each nation differ from one another in the same way as the total samples of the populations differ from one another. The primary-educated Mexican is still different from the primary-educated German or Briton. But perhaps the most striking point is that within each nation the same relationship between those with more and less education obtains. Within each nation the more educated segment is more fully involved in the political system, is more fully a participant in politics. The less educated segment is less likely to take a full participating role.

But there is evidence that educational level does affect the *degree* of difference among the nations. On all the measures of political

cognition or participation listed above—awareness of governmental impact, exposure to politics, political information, range of political opinions, subjective political competence, political participation—respondents on the higher educational levels tend to be more similar to one another than are the respondents on the lower educational levels. In general, the range between the nation where political participation is most frequent (United States) and the one where it is less frequent (Italy) is greatest among respondents with little education and least among those with higher education. This national difference among the former group is not always great, but it can be observed fairly consistently on all the measures listed above. Thus the university-educated respondents in Italy may differ from the university-educated respondents in the United States, but they are more like each other than are the Italians and Americans who did not get beyond primary education.

That higher education tends to reduce national differences suggests that the nature of political culture is greatly determined by the distribution of education. We have seen in Chapter 12 that education can substitute for family participation and, to some extent, for school participation as well: that is, the subjective competence of the more educated individual is less dependent on family or school participation than is the competence of the less educated individual. And the more highly educated segments of all five nations show a cross-national uniformity in political orientation. Educational systems vary, yet there is a certain uniformity in the educational experience; thus these people share a common experience. Those with less education share less of a common cross-cultural experience with one another and are more affected by the particular history and culture of their own national systems. To say that education replaces national differences is of course an exaggeration; national differences persist, as we have said, even among the highly educated; moreover, the generalization being made here applies only to specific political orientations. Nevertheless, the highly educated participate in politics, no matter what their nation; participation by the less educated depends more heavily upon nation.

The highly educated show another cross-national uniformity: compared with the less educated, they participate more frequently in voluntary associations. We would expect this from educated respondents as they pursue professional activities or certain kinds of leisure activity. But beyond that, the finding demonstrates the

way in which the potentialities for political participation can accumulate within this segment of society. Not only does education itself increase political participation; it also places the individual in an organizational situation which further heightens his participation.

We referred above (p. 381) to one exception in this first class of orientations that are uniformly affected by education. This is trust and confidence in the social environment. We have to qualify our comment that only cognitive awareness and political competence are increased by education in all five countries, for educated people appear to have trust in the social environment. And insofar as this trust is an important precondition of the capacity to join with others to effect political goals, we may stress even further the importance of education as a factor affecting democratic capabilities. It may not be too much to say that it produces a protocivic tendency. (We shall show below, however, that certain crucial components of the civic culture are not affected by education.)

We turn now to the second class of political orientations: those that the relatively uneducated share with the more educated in all five nations. One example of such an attitude was reported in Chapter 6. There we saw that the norm that one ought to be a participant in the local community is found somewhat more frequently within the highly educated segments of society than among those with lower education, but this difference is relatively small compared with the other differences listed above. Similarly, we reported in Chapter 5 that the frequency with which individuals say favorable things about opposition party supporters does increase with education, but again the increase is neither consistent nor great. Both the more and less educated parts of each nation have relatively similar evaluations of opposition party supporters. And in the example of the strategy of influence, in particular the belief that one can cooperate with others in attempting to influence the government (discussed extensively in Chapters 7 and 10), there is almost no difference among the educational levels. Within each nation, local competents on all educational levels showed roughly the same frequency of cooperative competence. These three dimensions that are relatively unaffected by education—the norm that one ought to participate, the strategy to be employed in participating, and the degree of antagonism between the supporters of political parties—are not neutral political

orientations. As political orientation becomes loaded with affective and evaluative content, we begin to find relatively great uniformity within each nation, and less difference among the educational subgroups. Of particular interest is the fact that interparty antagonism and cooperative competence do not differ as much among the educational levels as does the more neutral, interpersonal activity of engaging in political discussion.

We have been saying that the educational groups in each nation differ less in their evaluations of the political potentialities of their fellow citizens than they do in their evaluatively neutral participation and cognition of politics. This can be shown if we can reconsider one of the orientations of the first type: the frequency with which respondents indicate that they avoid political discussion. Those on the lower levels of education more frequently say that there are many individuals with whom they avoid political discussions. This might be taken to mean that their evaluations of the political environment differ from those of the more educated; that in each nation the less educated, compared with the more educated, are more likely to find that environment hostile or dangerous or unpleasant. The major reason for this educational difference in evaluation of the political system is the cognitive capability of each group. In giving their reasons for avoiding political discussion, those with lower education are more likely than those with higher education to say that they consider themselves too ignorant or ill-informed. The more educated are somewhat more likely to cite their belief that such discussions are useless: that other people are not interested or have already made up their minds. On the other hand, reasons that would imply a negative evaluation of the political environment—such reasons as the "unpleasantness" of political controversy, the danger that one might get into trouble with the authorities by expressing one's point of view, or that one might suffer some economic loss—are given with about equal frequency by respondents in all levels of education.

In subjective and cognitive competence, then, the more educated respondents in each nation exist more fully within the political system. But when it comes to norms of political behavior or feelings about politics or partisanship, the various educational groups within each nation are more like one another. To illustrate this point, we shall consider those attitudes in our survey where education seems to have a different impact from one nation to another. We found this inconsistent pattern in three dimensions:

(1) In the United States and Britain those who are relatively more educated are more likely to express pride in the political aspects of their nation than are those with somewhat less education; a similar but smaller difference exists in Mexico; in Germany and Italy, however, there is no such difference between the education groups (Chapter 4);

(2) The sense of administrative competence—the extent to which individuals think they will be treated fairly and have their point of view considered—varies hardly at all between the educational groups in the United States and Britain; it varies slightly more in Germany, and substantially in Mexico and Italy (Chapter 4). Despite a uniform pattern in each nation (in each case those with higher education are more likely to have a sense of administrative competence), the variation and the degree of difference between the upper and lower educational levels suggests that the relationship belongs in this third group of political orientations: where the national differences between the educational groups are not uniform; and

(3) The relationship between the affective tone of election campaigns and educational attainment presents a mixed cross-national pattern (Chapter 5). In the United States, Britain, and Mexico, the more highly educated express more general satisfaction with their electoral participation, and also more frequently express the other three feelings we asked about: anger at election campaigns, enjoyment of election campaigns, and the feeling that these campaigns are silly or ridiculous. In Germany those with higher education more frequently express anger at election campaigns; but in their expression of satisfaction, as well as in the other two affective orientations to elections, they do not differ in any systematic way from those with lower education. In Italy, on the other hand, though anger, enjoyment, and the feeling that elections are silly increase in frequency as one moves up the educational ladder, the sense of satisfaction at electoral participation does not increase in this way.

In summary, we can say that in all five countries the less educated strata of the population tend to constitute subject and parochial subcultures. Pure parochials, in the sense defined in our classification are rarely encountered among the respondents in our five countries. The overwhelming majority have had some exposure to governmental authority. The closest approximation of parochialism occurs among uneducated women particularly in Italy and Mexico. And

here it is more normative and affective than cognitive. That is, in these countries, and to some extent in the others, political awareness and involvement are not considered appropriate to the female role. Hence we encounter uneducated women who know vaguely of the existence of government and politics, but who are uninvolved with them and take their indifference for granted.

The uneducated in our five countries who are oriented to government and politics are frequently oriented as subjects rather than as citizens. They tend more frequently to recognize the impact of government and to expect equal treatment by bureaucratic authority than to engage in political discussion or follow politics and election campaigns. But here there are national differences of some importance. In the United States, Britain, and Germany, large proportions of the uneducated (though much smaller than the educated) are oriented toward political input as well as governmental output. In other words, there are substantial numbers of citizens among them. In Italy and Mexico, on the other hand, the uneducated are far less frequently oriented toward politics and political participation. They tend to be subjects in their orientation, and at the level of illiteracy they approach parochialism.

But we have been speaking thus far only of the cognitive and competence dimensions, where education has fairly uniform effects from country to country. If we look at these dimensions where education has little or no effect, or where its effects differ from country to country, we must qualify the propositions we have made regarding the parochial and subject tendencies among the uneducated. Thus in the United States and Britain the uneducated tend to share with the educated a common affective and normative allegiance to the political system, even though they differ sharply in the incidence of awareness and subjective competence. In Germany and Italy the uneducated tend to share with the educated a normative and affective alienation from the political system. The Mexican pattern is more complex, resembling the American and British in some respects, and the German and Italian in others.

Women and Political Orientation

Some of the advocates of feminine suffrage a few decades ago made exaggerated claims about the consequences of granting equal political rights to women. A polity that included women as active partici-

pants would, they said, abolish poverty, protect family life, and raise educational and cultural standards; an international society made up of nations in which women had the suffrage would not tolerate war. Certainly these expectations have not been realized. Wherever the consequences of women's suffrage have been studied, it would appear that women differ from men in their political behavior only in being somewhat more frequently apathetic, parochial, conservative, and sensitive to the personality, emotional, and esthetic aspects of political life and electoral campaigns.[1]

Lane, in explaining this feminine political pattern, argues: "The culture emphasizes moral, dependent, and politically less competent images of women, which reduce their partisanship and sense of political effectiveness and define a less active political role for them."[2] It would appear from the context that Lane is referring to American culture, where this characterization of the feminine image, though applicable, is less applicable than in most—if not all—other nations. Perhaps it is this failure in the literature to appreciate the cultural and national differences in the political orientations and behavior of women that leaves our understanding of the problem in an unsatisfactory condition.

Our data, on the whole, confirm the findings reported in the literature. In each of the countries we studied, men showed higher frequencies and higher intensities than women in practically all the indices of political orientation and activity that we employed. However, when we compare one country with another, it is quite clear that the feminine political patterns differ. We suggest that these differences have important implications for the functioning of political systems, and that these implications are not simply of the parochial, apathetic, conservative, and "emotional" sort referred to in the literature. Even if these patterns persist, and in all likelihood they will, they are probably not the most important consequences of the enfranchisement of women.

The Open and the Closed Family. In Chapter 10 we showed that leisure activities differ among the five countries. Americans and Britons report much more frequently than Germans, Italians, and

[1] See Robert E. Lane, *Political Life,* pp. 209 ff.; Maurice Duverger, *The Political Role of Women;* Fred W. Greenstein, "Sex-Related Political Differences in Childhood," *The Journal of Politics,* XXIII (1961), pp. 353 ff.; M. Dogan and J. Narbonne, *Les Françaises Facent à la Politique,* Paris, 1955; Gabriele Bremme, *Die Politische Rolle der Frau in Deutschland.*

[2] *Op. cit.,* p. 215.

Mexicans that they spend their free time in organized or social activities. What is most interesting is the fact that these relatively higher frequencies seem to derive from the rate of social interaction among American and British women (see Table 1). Thus the percentages of men who choose political, community, religious, and social forms of free-time activity are similar in the United States, Britain, and Germany—while it is the American and British women who most frequently report these types of leisure activities. In Italy and Mexico neither men nor women seem to want to interact or actually to interact with others in their community.

TABLE 1
Per Cent who Choose Outgoing Leisure Activities,[a] by Nation and Sex

	Total		*Male*		*Female*	
Nation	*(%)*	*(No.)*[b]	*(%)*	*(No.)*	*(%)*	*(No.)*
United States	40	(970)	24	(455)	54	(515)
Great Britain	30	(963)	22	(460)	37	(503)
Germany	16	(955)	18	(449)	13	(506)
Italy	7	(995)	6	(471)	9	(524)
Mexico	11	(1,007)	8	(355)	13	(652)

[a] For text of question, see Ch. 10, pp. 262-63.
[b] Numbers in parentheses refer to the bases upon which percentages are calculated.

Needless to say, these figures do not cover the whole gamut of social interaction. The respondents were asked to exclude their occupational and family interests. Nevertheless, the findings are striking. They suggest a type of family in the United States and Britain that is open to the community, and open via both men and women. When we recall that the proportion of respondents in the United States and Britain who trust other people and have confidence in the safety of social relations is much higher than it is in Germany, Italy, and Mexico, we may add a significant item to the social interaction pattern. The higher rate of social interaction in the United States and Britain seems to be associated with a sense of safety and responsiveness in the community—a sense that is shared equally by American and British men and women.

Women and Political Participation. It remains to show that the relative "openness" of the American and British family is associated with the political orientations and roles of American and British women. We may begin with some of our indices of political activity.

Table 2 records the proportions of male and female respondents in the five countries who report that they discuss politics. If we look at the total columns, it is clear that, though in all five countries men more frequently than women say they discuss politics, in the United States and Britain the differences in frequency are rather small. Around two-thirds of the women in each country say they discuss politics; Germany, Mexico, and Italy follow in order of frequency. At the level of primary education or less, the differences between the sexes are more pronounced in all five countries. Nevertheless, well

TABLE 2
Per Cent who Discuss Politics, by Sex and Education

	Total				*Primary or Less*				*Secondary or More*			
	Male		*Female*		*Male*		*Female*		*Male*		*Female*	
Nation	%	*No.**	%	*No.*	%	*No.*	%	*No.*	%	*No.*	%	*No.*
United States	83	(455)	70	(515)	73	(248)	57	(269)	95	(207)	83	(246)
Great Britain	77	(459)	63	(503)	74	(277)	56	(340)	83	(182)	75	(163)
Germany	77	(442)	46	(499)	74	(352)	42	(440)	88	(90)	74	(59)
Italy	47	(471)	18	(524)	36	(293)	13	(403)	64	(178)	37	(121)
Mexico	55	(355)	29	(652)	49	(285)	26	(592)	77	(67)	56	(60)

* Numbers in parentheses refer to the bases upon which percentages are calculated.

over half of the less well-educated American and British women report that they discuss politics, as compared with 42 per cent of the German, 26 per cent of the Mexican, and 13 per cent of the Italian women.

At the level of secondary education or higher, the proportions of women who discuss politics in the United States, Britain, and Germany reach or exceed three-quarters. The increase in Mexico is substantial; while in Italy, though the increase from primary to secondary is large, only a little more than one-third of the educated feminine population report that they talk politics. The German figures are of particular interest. At the level of secondary education, German women discuss politics as frequently as British women and only a little less frequently than the American. However, German women in general feel more restricted in their political communications, as is shown in Table 3. While American and British men and women resemble each other in their sense of freedom to discuss politics, almost two-thirds of the German women report feeling severely restricted, as compared with 48 per cent of the

German men. The Italian pattern is similar to the German, while the Mexican falls in the middle of the five nations.

What this would seem to suggest is that in the United States and Britain, where women report high rates of social interaction in their communities, and where they report almost as frequently as men that they feel free to discuss politics, the family becomes part of the system of political communications. In Italy, on the other hand, the general rate of political discussion is low, and particularly low among

TABLE 3
Feelings of Freedom or Restriction in Discussing Politics, by Sex and Nation
(in per cent)

	U.S.		*U.K.*		*Germany*		*Italy*		*Mexico*	
Per Cent who Feel	*M.*	*F.*	*M.*	*F.*	*M.*	*F.*	*M.*	*F.*	*M.*	*F.*
They must avoid talking to many or almost all people	34	40	31	31	48	61	43	59	45	41
They can talk to anyone or most people	66	60	66	62	46	30	50	25	47	38
Don't know and other	0	0	3	7	6	9	7	16	8	21
Total per cent	100	100	100	100	100	100	100	100	100	100
Total number of cases	455	515	460	503	449	506	471	524	355	652

women; here, too, it would appear that when men engage in political discussion, they tend to do so outside the home: in the café, on the street, or in their places of work. In Germany and Mexico, which seem to present an intermediate pattern, educated women in particular engage in political discussion at a relatively high rate. In Germany the rate of political discussion among educated women is as high as it is among American and British women; the rate among uneducated German women is substantially below that of their American and British counterparts.

Our hypothesis, that American and British families tend to be involved in the political communications system, is supported by our data on voluntary association membership. Thus Table 4 shows us that more than two-thirds of the American men and almost half of the American women in our sample are members of voluntary associations (civic organizations, interest groups, church groups, social groups, and the like). One-quarter or more of the American men and of the women have at some time been officers of voluntary associa-

tions. In Britain proportionately fewer women are members of organizations, and only a small percentage have ever been officers of such groups. In Germany the differences between men and women

TABLE 4
Membership in Voluntary Associations, by Sex and Education
(in per cent)

Nation and Sex		*Officer*	*Member*	*Either*	*Neither*	*Total %*	*Total No.*
U.S.	M.	28	40	68	32	100	455
	F.	25	22	47	53	100	515
U.K.	M.	21	45	66	34	100	459
	F.	7	23	30	70	100	503
German	M.	12	55	67	33	100	442
	F.	2	22	24	76	100	499
Italian	M.	10	31	41	59	100	471
	F.	4	15	19	81	100	524
Mexican	M.	14	29	43	57	100	355
	F.	3	12	15	85	100	652
			PRIMARY OR LESS				
U.S.	M.	18	42	60	41	101	248
	F.	17	23	40	60	100	269
U.K.	M.	16	47	63	37	100	277
	F.	5	19	24	76	100	340
German	M.	9	57	66	34	100	352
	F.	2	19	21	80	101	440
Italian	M.	5	32	37	62	99	299
	F.	2	14	16	84	100	403
Mexican	M.	15	23	38	62	100	285
	F.	2	11	13	87	100	592
			SECONDARY OR MORE				
U.S.	M.	40	39	79	22	101	207
	F.	34	21	55	45	100	246
U.K.	M.	29	42	71	29	100	182
	F.	10	32	42	58	100	163
German	M.	24	48	72	28	100	90
	F.	5	46	51	49	100	59
Italian	M.	18	29	47	53	100	178
	F.	9	18	27	73	100	121
Mexican	M.	31	29	60	40	100	67
	F.	6	21	27	73	100	60

in their organizational activity are greater than in Britain, while in Italy and Mexico the proportion of female organizational members is lowest of all.

In all five countries the percentages of organizational members increase with education. The German frequencies for both men and women exceed the British and are almost as high as the American. Perhaps the most interesting findings in the table are the figures

for educated American women. Thirty-four per cent have held office in voluntary associations at one time or another. In Italy and Mexico, organizational membership is quite low even among the better educated women, (27 per cent).

TABLE 5
Per Cent High Scorers[a] in Political Information Test, by Sex and Nation

	Total				*Primary or Less*				*Secondary or More*			
	Male		*Female*		*Male*		*Female*		*Male*		*Female*	
Nation	%	*No.*[b]	%	*No.*	%	*No.*	%	*No.*	%	*No.*	%	*No.*
United States	59	(455)	40	(515)	45	(248)	25	(269)	77	(207)	61	(246)
Great Britain	60	(459)	36	(503)	54	(277)	30	(340)	70	(182)	52	(163)
Germany	71	(442)	51	(499)	66	(352)	38	(440)	90	(90)	88	(59)
Italy	32	(471)	14	(524)	27	(293)	4	(403)	66	(178)	46	(121)
Mexico	43	(355)	15	(652)	32	(285)	9	(592)	77	(67)	52	(60)

[a] High scorers on information can name at least two party leaders and two ministries or cabinet positions.
[b] Numbers in parentheses refer to the bases upon which percentages are calculated.

TABLE 6
Per Cent Low Scorers[a] in Following Politics and Political Campaigns, by Sex and Education

	Total				*Primary or Less*				*Secondary or More*			
	Male		*Female*		*Male*		*Female*		*Male*		*Female*	
Nation	%	*No.*[b]	%	*No.*	%	*No.*	%	*No.*	%	*No.*	%	*No.*
United States	16	(455)	23	(515)	25	(248)	36	(269)	6	(207)	9	(246)
Great Britain	31	(459)	48	(503)	34	(277)	54	(340)	27	(182)	35	(163)
Germany	20	(442)	45	(499)	24	(352)	49	(440)	8	(90)	22	(59)
Italy	52	(471)	81	(524)	60	(293)	88	(403)	39	(178)	60	(121)
Mexico	37	(355)	66	(652)	40	(285)	70	(592)	28	(67)	35	(60)

[a] Low scorers neither follow politics nor pay attention to political campaigns.
[b] Numbers in parentheses refer to the bases upon which percentages are calculated.

Political Awareness and Information. In the purely cognitive dimensions of political awareness and information, a somewhat different pattern emerges. German women are as frequently well informed about politics as British women (see Table 5). At the level of secondary education German women seem much more frequently well informed than American and British women. It is of interest that Italian women with secondary education almost reach the British frequency, and Mexican women equal it.

In Table 6 we report the frequencies of low scores among men and women on our political awareness questions. The "low scorers" are

those who report that they neither follow politics nor pay attention to campaigns. German women are more frequently politically aware than the British, while Italian women appear to be the least frequently aware of all: eighty-one per cent score low on following politics and political campaigns. At the level of secondary education the percentage of low scorers drops in all countries. But again German educated women have a higher frequency of political awareness than do British women of similar education. Italian women, even on and above the level of secondary education, continue to have an exceptionally high "unaware" frequency (60 per cent).

TABLE 7
Per Cent who Acknowledge Duty to Participate in Local Community, by Sex and Nation

	Total				*Primary or Less*				*Secondary or More*			
	Male		*Female*		*Male*		*Female*		*Male*		*Female*	
Nation	%	*No.**	%	*No.*	%	*No.*	%	*No.*	%	*No.*	%	*No.*
United States	52	(455)	50	(515)	37	(248)	42	(269)	70	(207)	59	(246)
Great Britain	43	(459)	36	(503)	43	(277)	33	(340)	42	(182)	43	(163)
Germany	31	(442)	16	(499)	29	(359)	16	(440)	40	(90)	22	(59)
Italy	14	(471)	6	(524)	9	(293)	5	(403)	22	(178)	12	(121)
Mexico	31	(355)	24	(652)	29	(285)	22	(592)	39	(67)	36	(60)

* Numbers in parentheses refer to the bases upon which percentages are calculated.

In the dimension of pure cognition, compared with that of participation, we have a reversal in the ranking of national female performance, as well as in the ranking of nations. Just as Germans in general rank higher in political cognition than do the British, so do German women exceed British women in frequency of cognition. On the other hand, the Italian pattern persists in the cognitive dimension, even among educated Italian women. Six out of ten educated Italian women report that they never or infrequently follow politics and political campaigns—a proportion almost twice that of their Mexican counterparts.

Political Responsibility and Competence. Sex differences in political obligation and competence fall into a pattern that tends to support our earlier hypothesis about the role of women in Britain and the United States. Thus Table 7 shows that almost equal proportions of American men and women say that ordinary people have an obligation to participate actively in the public affairs of their local communities. In Britain the overall percentage is somewhat

lower and the difference between men and women somewhat greater. But in Germany the female frequency drops to half that of the male. German women acknowledge political obligations in the local community less frequently than do Mexican women. The sense of local obligation among Italian men and women has an extremely low frequency; indeed, it appears to be almost nonexistent among Italian women.

Education clearly increases the frequency of political obligation in all five countries. But in this dimension, too, we have found

TABLE 8

Per Cent who Report Subjective Political Competence (Local and National), by Nation and Sex

	Local				*National*			
	Male		*Female*		*Male*		*Female*	
Nation	%	*No.**	%	*No.*	%	*No.*	%	*No.*
United States	81	(455)	83	(515)	77	(455)	72	(515)
Great Britain	83	(459)	72	(503)	70	(459)	56	(503)
Germany	72	(442)	53	(499)	49	(442)	27	(499)
Italy	62	(471)	41	(524)	38	(471)	19	(524)
Mexico	62	(355)	46	(652)	46	(355)	33	(652)

* Numbers in parentheses refer to the bases upon which percentages are calculated.

evidence to support our hypothesis that relatively educated American and British men and women have similar frequencies, while in Germany and Italy substantial differences persist among secondary-educated men and women. In Germay 22 per cent of the secondary-educated women, as compared to 40 per cent of the secondary-educated men, acknowledge political obligation in the local community. In Italy the figure for males is 22 per cent; for females, 12 per cent. The Mexican pattern is very similar to the British, with 39 per cent of the educated males and 36 per cent of the educated females acknowledging local obligations.

If we examine the responses to our questions on the sense of competence to influence local and national governments, several points may be made (Table 8). In all five countries women as well as men more frequently feel locally competent than nationally competent; and this difference is especially noticeable among women. But despite this universal trend, almost three-fourths of the American female respondents express a sense of national competence. In Germany, while 53 per cent of the women express local competence,

only 27 per cent express national competence; and the Italian figures are, respectively, 41 per cent and 19 per cent. Mexican women express national competence somewhat more frequently than do German women. As these data suggest, the view that female political competence tends to be limited to the local community seems to be true of the continental European countries, but much less true of the United States and Britain.

Education raises the frequency of subjective political competence at both the local and national levels in all five countries. And it raises it for both males and females. The majority of the better-educated women in all five countries express a sense of competence to influence their local governments. But the Italian percentage of locally competent, educated women is lowest of all: 52 per cent (n: 121), as compared with 87 per cent (n: 246) for educated American women, 83 per cent (n: 163) for the British, 82 per cent (n: 159) for the German, and 68 per cent (n: 60) for Mexican educated women. Women's sense of competence to influence the national government also increases universally with education. However, the better-educated Italian women express national political competence infrequently (25 per cent, n: 121). In the dimension of local and national competence, educated German women show frequencies almost as high as those of American and British women.

Feelings Toward Nation and Politics. Here we have measures of emotional involvement in politics for men and women. One of these measures, discussed in detail in Chapter 4, is pride in nation. There we pointed out that the incidence of pride in the political aspects of the nation was high in the United States and Britain, fairly high in Mexico, and very low in Germany and Italy. The female patterns resemble the overall national patterns. Thus 91 per cent (n: 515) of the American women express political pride, as compared with 61 per cent (n: 563) of the British women, 26 per cent (n: 652) of Mexican women, 15 per cent (n: 499) of German women, and 3 per cent (n: 523) of Italian women.

We are able to ascertain an apathy rate from our series of questions on feelings during election campaigns. If we define as politically apathetic those who report none of the three feelings of enjoyment, anger, and contempt during election campaigns, the following pattern emerges (Table 9): in all five countries the female apathy rate is higher than the male. In Germany it is almost double the male rate; in Mexico both proportions are high and more nearly

equal; in Italy the rates are very high for both men and women, with almost two-thirds of the women manifesting apathy. In the United States 14 per cent of the women and 9 per cent of the men are apathetic; in Britain the percentages are 32 for women and 20 for men.

Education reduces the rate of apathy among women in all countries. Nevertheless, apathy is characteristic of almost one-half of the secondary-educated Italian women (n: 121), as compared with 29 per cent (n: 163) of the better-educated women in Britain, 24 per

TABLE 9
Per Cent who Report No Feelings about Election Campaigns, by Sex and Nation

Nation	Male (%)	Male (No.)*	Female (%)	Female (No.)
United States	9	(455)	14	(515)
Great Britain	20	(459)	32	(503)
Germany	24	(442)	44	(499)
Italy	46	(471)	62	(524)
Mexico	30	(355)	48	(652)

* Numbers in parentheses refer to the bases upon which percentages are calculated.

cent (n: 59) of those in Germany, 22 per cent (n: 60) of those in Mexico, and 10 per cent (n: 246) of those in America.

Women and the Political System. In summary, we may say that American women and, to a somewhat lesser extent, British women tend to be active and involved in their communities, both in an informal and in an organizational sense. They are trustful of their social surroundings, politically informed, observant, and emotionally involved in the political scene. They acknowledge the obligation to participate actively in local political affairs, they feel competent to exercise influence over their government, and they take pride in the political characteristics of their nations. Except in the dimension of political awareness and knowledge, German women manifest lower frequencies than do American and British women. But except in the dimensions of social interaction, pride in nation, and local community obligation, educated German women manifest frequencies similar to those of American and British women. Mexican women show an uneven pattern: relatively low in the dimensions of participation and knowledge, they equal or surpass the German female rates in the obligation and national competence dimensions,

and they are relatively high in national pride. The Italian feminine pattern is almost consistently low in all the political dimensions discussed here.

If we consider these data from the point of view of the political systems in the five countries, it is evident that we have to revise older theories of the role of women in democracy. These theories have tended to treat the sex differential in the same way that they treat other demographic categories, such as income, occupation, education, and the like. What they have overlooked is the fact that the great majority of adults are married; that they create families, raise children, and help to "socialize" these children into their adult roles and attitudes. Thus the political characteristics of women affect the family as a unit in the political system and affect the way in which the family performs the political socialization function. In all five countries, of course, the overwhelming majority of politicians, civil servants, and political activists are men. But it makes a great deal of difference whether women tend to live outside the political system in an intra-mural family existence, which is generally the case in Italy and among the relatively uneducated German and Mexican women, or within the political system, which tends to be the case in the United States and Britain. Duverger's comment that women ". . . have the mentality of minors in many fields and, particularly in politics, they usually accept paternalism on the part of men. The man—husband, fiancé, lover, or myth—is the mediator between them and the political world"[3] is an essentially continental European comment, and even here Duverger may be commenting more on the past and present than on the future.

While our data do not permit us to demonstrate it directly and explicitly, we are suggesting that in the United States and Britain the family tends to be a part of the political system, that events and issues in the polity tend to be transmitted into the family via both marriage partners, and that political discussion tends to be frequent and reciprocal, rather than male-dominated. Furthermore, we suggest that the problems of family life, the needs of women and children are more directly and effectively transmitted into the polity through this kind of politically open family. The esthetic quality and emotional tone of political life are probably also affected by the

[3] Duverger, *op. cit.*, p. 129. For comments on Duverger, and an analysis of differences in the socialization of American boys and girls, which affect male and female adult political patterns, see Greenstein, *op. cit.*, p. 370.

political competence and activity of women in the United States and Britain. We would suggest, too, that a family that is open to reciprocal discussion of political issues provides a type of political socialization that enables children to develop *within the family itself* a sense of political competence and obligation, and to learn to tolerate the ambiguities of politics and political controversy.

From this point of view, politically competent, aware, and active women seem to be an essential component of the civic culture. The significance of the political emancipation of women is not in the suffragette's dream of women in cabinets, parliaments, at the upper levels of the civil service, and the like; nor is it in Duverger's conception of the dependent minor. March has shown that there tends to be a division of labor between husbands and wives in the kinds of issues on which they take the initiative.[4] Greenstein has shown that American boys are more politically aware and informed than girls,[5] and he suggests how differential political socialization in the family produces these sexual differences. He also points out, correctly, that there are inherent limitations in the adult female role, which set an outer boundary to political participation for the great majority of women. What a purely American study would not bring to light is the fact that, by comparison with continental European women, American and British women tend to "live in" the community and the polity; and this has considerable significance for the functioning of the polity. We have only suggested what these consequences may be.

That the role of the passive and parochial woman may be on the way out, even in Italy, is suggested by two pieces of evidence. We have already seen that awareness and participation are greater among educated than among uneducated women. Thus we may assume that the increasingly wide distribution of educational opportunities in all five countries will eventually weaken the traditional female status. Relevant to this problem is a recent question that was asked in another survey conducted in a number of different countries, including Britain, Germany, and Italy. The question was: "Are you of the opinion that women should have the same political and legal rights as men or not?" The responses reveal the popular *norms* regarding the status of women, the rights and powers they

[4] James G. March, "Husband-Wife Interaction Over Political Issues," *The Public Opinion Quarterly*, XVIII (1953-54), pp. 461-70.

[5] *Op. cit.*, pp. 365 ff.

should have, rather than their current attitudes and performance. If acknowledgement of the norm of female equality is any indication of future changes in attitude and behavior, then our hypothesis about the general trend toward the open and participatory family receives support. Seventy-nine per cent of the British respondents of both sexes, 65 per cent of the Italians, and 62 per cent of the Germans answered the question affirmatively.[6]

Other Demographic Patterns

The many studies of voting behavior, party preference, and attitudes on political issues have shown that these patterns depend heavily on social position: occupation, income, and social status. The sorts of attitudes we have been concerned with—political awareness, competence, activity, and affect—are also influenced by socio-economic status. Individuals with lower income or with lower-status jobs are less likely to be involved in politics, to be well informed, to be active. However, though economic position does have a general cross-national effect on attitudes, this effect is neither as clear nor as strong as that of education. When education is held constant, differences among economic groups decline. Still, a fairly uniform relationship does remain: the man higher in the economic heirarchy, just like the more educated man, is more likely to be politically competent and active.

The relation between religion and political attitudes is more complex. Lenski, in his detailed analysis of differences in attitudes and behavior among religious groups in the Detroit area, makes the point that Catholics tend to be more traditional in their social orientations than Protestants and Jews. They are less frequently achievement oriented, and morally and intellectually less autonomous. They are more conservative on matters of social and religious morality. In the field of public policy, he reports, Catholics tend to be more "welfare" oriented than Protestants, and they give less support to civil rights.[7]

In the dimensions covered in our survey, there is some slight support for Lenski's thesis that Catholics are more traditional than Protestants, yet the differences are so small as to be negligible. Far more important is the finding that in the three of our countries

[6] *DIVO Presse Dienst,* Cologne, April 2, 1958.

[7] Gerhard Lenski, *The Religious Factor,* Garden City, New York, 1961, chaps. 4 and 8.

where both denominations are present in substantial numbers—the United States, Britain, and Germany—Protestants and Catholics have similar structural political orientations. In other words, the two denominations do not constitute political subcultures in the structural sense of the term. Certainly in all three countries there is a strong relation between denominational and party preference. And had our study included public policy issues, especially those on which the denominations tend to be divided, or had it included moral and social issues, then greater differences would probably have come to light.

Other demographic characteristics, such as age, region, and city size have been treated only in specific contexts in our study. We are unable to treat them more systematically because of the priorities of our research design. We were concerned primarily with national rather than subcultural patterns, and with attitudes toward the political system rather than public policy. Investigation of the phenomena of political subcultures and of their relation to demographic characteristics requires a research design of its own.